

Maslow's Theory of Personality (Lessons 19-20)

Overview of Humanistic Psychology

- Humanistic psychology is a "third force" in the field, emphasizing the positive aspects of life such as free will and personal growth.
- It assumes that human nature is inherently good, and aggressive or abnormal behavior is caused by society, not the individual.
- Abnormality is seen as a refusal to take personal responsibility for one's own actions and thoughts.
- Human behavior is a result of voluntary choices.

Abraham Maslow: Biographical Sketch

- Abraham Harold Maslow was born in 1908 in Brooklyn, New York, to uneducated Jewish immigrant parents from Russia.
- As the eldest of seven children, he was strongly encouraged by his parents to succeed academically.
- He initially studied psychology at the University of Wisconsin, influenced by John Watson's behaviorism.
- His enthusiasm for behaviorism faded after the birth of his first daughter, as he felt it was more relevant to animals than to humans.
- Maslow was a founding editor of both the *Journal of Humanistic Psychology* and the *Journal of Transpersonal Psychology* and was elected president of the American Psychological Association for 1967-1968.
- He was keenly interested in "growth psychology".

Basic Tenets of Humanistic Psychology

- **The Individual as an Integrated Whole:** Each person should be studied as a unified, organized, and unique whole. Maslow's theory was developed partly in opposition to theories (like behaviorism) that focus on isolated parts of behavior rather than the entire person.
- **Irrelevance of Animal Research:** Humanistic psychologists believe there is a fundamental difference between human and animal behavior. They argue that only humans can theorize about other humans.
- **Man's Inner Nature:** The theory posits that people are not inherently evil; instead, destructive forces arise from a negative environment.
- **Human Creative Potential:** Creativity is considered the most significant concept of humanistic psychology and a universal human function. It is not limited to artists, but can be expressed in any form, such as being a creative homemaker or business executive.
- **Emphasis on Psychological Health:** Maslow criticized other theories, particularly Freud's, for focusing too much on neurotic and psychotic individuals and failing to adequately study healthy people.

Maslow's Hierarchy of Needs

- Maslow's theory is a motivational theory that suggests human behavior is driven by the desire to achieve personal goals that provide meaning and reward.
- He proposed a hierarchy of innate human needs, arranged in order of potency or priority.
- The hierarchy is often represented as a pyramid, with basic needs at the broad base and self-actualization at the narrow top.
- Lower-level needs must be at least partially satisfied before a person can be motivated by higher-level needs. The lower a need is in the hierarchy, the greater its strength tends to be.

The Five Levels of the Hierarchy:

1. **Physiological Needs:** These are the most fundamental and powerful needs for physical survival, including food, water, oxygen, sleep, and sex. They must be met at a minimal level before other needs become motivating.
2. **Safety Needs:** Once physiological needs are met, the need for security, order, and predictability in one's environment emerges. This is most easily observed in children who are helpless and dependent.
3. **Belongingness and Love Needs:** This third level involves the need for affectionate relationships with others and a sense of belonging in a family or group. When these needs are not met, a person feels loneliness and rejection.
4. **Self-Esteem Needs:** These needs are divided into two categories:
 - **Self-respect:** The desire for competence, confidence, personal strength, and achievement.
 - **Esteem from others:** The desire for prestige, recognition, status, and appreciation from others.
5. **Self-Actualization Needs:** This is the highest level, representing the desire to become everything one is capable of becoming and to reach one's full potential. Maslow estimated that less than 1% of the population achieves self-actualization.

Why Don't All People Achieve Self-Actualization?

- Maslow believed that most people have the impulse for self-actualization, but only a few—usually the gifted—ever achieve it.
- One reason is that many people are unaware of their potential and fear their own abilities.
- The social environment can also stifle self-fulfillment.
- Maslow's meta-motivational theory distinguishes between **basic needs** (e.g., hunger, security) and **meta-needs** (e.g., justice, beauty, order). While basic needs have a hierarchy, meta-needs do not; they are

instinctual, and if unfulfilled, an individual becomes "sick" in a psychological sense.

Characteristics of Self-Actualizers

Maslow identified sixteen characteristics of self-actualizing individuals.

1. **Efficient Perception of Reality:** They see reality as it is, without being distorted by desires or fears, and are less emotional and more objective in their perceptions.
2. **Acceptance of Self, Others, and Nature:** They accept their own and others' shortcomings without undue concern, and are free from debilitating anxiety and guilt.
3. **Spontaneity, Simplicity, Naturalness:** Their inner life is unconventional, natural, and spontaneous, without artificiality.
4. **Problem Centering:** They are committed to a task or vocation outside of their immediate needs, a "mission in life".
5. **Detachment: Need for Privacy:** They prefer solitude and privacy more than the average person and are unruffled by things that disturb others. They rely on their inner resources and are calm during personal misfortune.
6. **Autonomy: Independence of Culture and Environment:** Their main satisfactions come from their own potentialities rather than the social environment. They are self-directed and not dependent on others' opinions, status, or popularity.
7. **Continued Freshness of Appreciation:** They can appreciate ordinary events with a sense of awe and pleasure, and rarely get bored with life.
8. **Peak or Mystic Experiences:** They frequently have moments of intense excitement, peace, and bliss, which Maslow called "peak experiences".
9. **Social Interest:** They feel a deep kinship with humanity and a desire to help improve the world, showing compassion and affection for all.

10. **Interpersonal Relations:** They form deeper and closer relationships than the average person, and tend to associate with other healthy individuals.
11. **Democratic Character Structure:** They are free from prejudice and are willing to learn from anyone, regardless of class, age, race, or beliefs.
12. **Discrimination between Means and Ends:** They have definite moral and ethical standards and show little confusion between right and wrong.
13. **Sense of Philosophical Humor:** They prefer philosophical or cosmic humor that pokes fun at the foolishness of humanity, rather than hostile or hurtful humor.
14. **Creativeness:** They are creative in a natural, universal sense, similar to the creativity found in children.
15. **Resistance to Enculturation:** They are in harmony with their culture but maintain an inner detachment, making their own decisions even if they conflict with popular opinion.

Self-Actualizers Aren't Angels

- Maslow acknowledged that self-actualizers are not perfect; they can be irritable, selfish, boring, and prone to temper tantrums, just like anyone else.

Goal of Psychotherapy

- According to Maslow, the goal of psychotherapy is to help a person get back on the path to self-actualization and to develop along the lines dictated by their inner nature.

Evaluation of Maslow's Theory

- His theory is praised for its humanistic and holistic approach to personality.

- It is a meta-motivational theory that provides a positive image of human nature.
- It focuses on studying healthy, well-functioning individuals rather than a sick population.
- Maslow's theory has had a significant impact on many disciplines, but empirical support is primarily limited to the hierarchy of needs and the concept of self-actualization. There is little evidence to support the idea that meta-needs emerge only after basic needs are met.

Carl Rogers' Person-Centered Approach (Lessons 21-23)

Core Concepts of Rogers' Theory

- **Phenomenological Theory of Personality:** This approach states that a person's behavior is understood by observing their internal frame of reference. To know why someone thinks, feels, and acts in a certain way, you must understand how they perceive and interpret the world.
 - **Phenomenology** is the study of an individual's subjective experiences, feelings, and personal views of the world and themselves.
- **Humanistic View:** This perspective emphasizes the positive aspects of life, free choices, and personal growth experiences.
- **Actualizing Tendency:** An innate need to survive, grow, and enhance one's self. It is the single, unifying motive that energizes and directs all behavior. Rogers believed this tendency is a biological fact common to all forms of life and is the "essence of life".

The Self-Concept

- The **self-concept** is the most important construct in Rogers' theory. It is a person's image of themselves, including their conscious perceptions, values, and sense of who they are and what they can do.

- The **ideal self** is the self-concept an individual would most like to possess.

Development of the Self-Concept

- **Organismic Valuing Process:** Initially, an infant evaluates experiences based on whether they facilitate or impede their innate actualizing tendency. For example, food and love are valued positively because they enhance the organism, while pain and loud noises are valued negatively because they interfere with biological integrity.
- **Need for Positive Regard:** As the self-concept emerges, people develop a basic desire for warmth, respect, admiration, and love from significant people in their lives.
- **Conditions of Worth:** These are standards set by others that a person must meet to receive positive regard. Rogers believed these conditions are detrimental to becoming a "fully functioning person" because the individual learns to seek external standards rather than their authentic self.
- **Unconditional Positive Regard:** This is when a person is accepted and respected for who they are, without any conditions. It is the ideal approach to child-rearing and does not mean a lack of discipline; rather, it means valuing the child as a human being.

Psychological Maladjustment and Health

- **Threat and Defense:** Threat occurs when a person recognizes an incongruity between their self-concept and their actual experience. Experiences that are inconsistent with the self-concept are perceived as threatening and are prevented from entering awareness.
- **Anxiety:** This is an emotional response to a threat, signaling that the self-structure is in danger of disorganization. The individual dimly perceives that acknowledging these experiences would force a change in their self-image.

- **Defense Mechanisms:** These are behavioral responses to a threat, aimed at maintaining the current self-structure. This is achieved through perceptual distortion or denial of experiences to reduce incongruity with the self. Rogers referred to this as rationalization.
- **Personality Disorganization and Psychopathology:** These occur when the self is unable to defend against threatening experiences. Psychotic behavior, for example, is often congruent with the denied aspects of experience rather than the self-concept.
- **The Fully Functioning Person:** This term designates individuals who are using their capacities and talents, realizing their potential, and moving toward a complete knowledge of themselves and their experiences. This is Rogers' view of the "good life".

Five Characteristics of a Fully Functioning Person:

1. **Openness to Experience:** The opposite of defensiveness, they can listen to their inner selves without feeling threatened.
2. **Experiential Living:** A global quality of living fully in each moment, where each moment is perceived as new and unique.
3. **Organismic Trusting:** In decision-making, they rely on their own organismic valuing process rather than social norms or the judgment of others.
4. **Experiential Freedom:** A subjective feeling that one is free to live life in any way they choose and can play a responsible role in shaping their world.
5. **Creativity:** They are the type of person from whom creative products (ideas, actions) and creative living would emerge.

Therapeutic and Educational Applications

Evolution of Rogerian Therapy

- **Nondirective Approach:** Rogers' initial approach focused on providing the proper atmosphere for clients to solve their own problems.
- **Client-Centered Therapy:** The focus shifted to the client's subjective experience and perceptions of themselves and their problems. It became a joint venture between the client and therapist.
- **Person-Centered Therapy:** This is the current term for Rogers' approach, emphasizing the importance of the relationship between the therapist and client as the most critical factor for personality change. The focus is on the total person, not just the "client".

Conditions for Effective Therapy

- **Psychological Contact:** The client and therapist must be in a relationship with each other.
- **Incongruence:** The client must be in a state of incongruence, which is causing anxiety.
- **Empathy:** The therapist must demonstrate empathetic understanding of the client's internal frame of reference.
- **Unconditional Positive Regard:** The therapist must provide unconditional positive regard to the client.
- **Client's Perception:** The client must perceive that the therapist is giving them unconditional positive regard.

Student-Centered Teaching

- Rogers believed the education system was based on the faulty assumption that students are passive recipients of information.
 - He advocated for a system where students feel free to learn in a non-threatening environment characterized by unconditional positive regard.
 - In this model, the **teacher is a facilitator** who creates an atmosphere conducive to learning, and learning is more effective when it has personal relevance for the student.
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Measuring the Self-Concept: The Q Sort

- The **Q-sort** is a specific rating procedure developed by William Stephenson to measure an individual's self-concept.
- The subject sorts a deck of cards, each with a personality characteristic, into categories ranging from "most like me" to "least like me".
- Subjects typically perform the sort twice: once for their **current self-description** and once for their **ideal self-description**.
- The **product-moment correlation coefficient** is used to measure the degree of congruence between the self-concept and ideal self-concept. A higher correlation indicates a greater degree of congruence.

Debates and Analogies

- **Skinner and Rogers Debate:** In 1955, Rogers (representing the subjective approach and free will) debated B.F. Skinner (representing the objective approach and determinism) at the American Psychological Association meeting. While Skinner emphasized external control of behavior, Rogers argued for creating an environment where humans could self-actualize freely.
- **Psychotherapy and Gardening:** Rogers used the analogy of gardening to describe the role of a therapist. Just as a gardener provides the right conditions for a plant to grow, a therapist provides the necessary conditions for a person to grow and flourish. This analogy reflects his belief in the inherent capacity of individuals to grow and enhance themselves.

Biographical Sketch

- Carl Ransom Rogers was born on January 8, 1902, in Oak Park, Illinois, a suburb of Chicago.
- He was the fourth of six children.
- His father was a civil engineer and contractor.

- His family was economically secure.
- He wrote several books, including *Psychotherapy and Personality Change* and *On Becoming a Person: A Therapist's View of Psychotherapy*.
- He is considered one of the most influential American psychologists.

George Kelly's Cognitive Theory of Personality (Lessons 24-25)

Overview of the Theory

George Kelly's theory is a

phenomenological and **cognitive** approach that focuses on how an individual's internal perspective and mental processes guide their behavior. It is also considered

existential and **humanistic** because it emphasizes a person's freedom to choose, their creative powers, and an optimistic view of their ability to solve problems. The central idea is that a person's behavior and thoughts are guided by a set of

personal constructs used to predict future events.

The Person as a Scientist

Kelly's central premise is that all humans act like scientists. They form theories, generate hypotheses, and test them against reality to reduce uncertainty and anticipate future events. This "scientist-like" view is the hallmark of his theory, and it emphasizes that individuals actively interpret and control their personal world.

Core Philosophical Assumptions

- **Constructive Alternativism:** This is the foundational assumption of Kelly's theory. It states that all present interpretations of the universe are open to revision or replacement. People are free to choose and create their own constructs to make sense of their experiences, but once chosen, they are bound by them. This means that a person's perception of reality is always subject to interpretation.
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Personal Constructs: The Building Blocks of Personality

A

construct is a category of thought that people use to interpret their world. It describes how events are both similar to each other and different from other events. Examples include "good versus bad" or "friendly versus hostile". Kelly's theory posits that an individual's personality is essentially their unique construct system.

Formal Properties of Constructs

- **Range of Convenience:** This is the domain of events for which a particular construct is relevant. For example, the construct "scholarly versus not scholarly" applies to intellectual accomplishments but not to marital status.
- **Permeability:** Some constructs are more permeable than others, meaning they are more open to new experiences and can be revised.

Types of Constructs

- **Preemptive Constructs:** These "freeze" their elements, allowing them membership in only one category. This is like "nothing but" thinking, where a person labeled a "Chicano" might be seen as nothing but a Chicano.

- **Dichotomy Corollary:** A construct always has two contrasting poles. For an event to be understood, it must be similar to one pole and different from another. For example, for "good versus bad" to be useful, a person must be able to categorize an event as good or bad.
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Motivation and Change in the Construct System

Kelly did not believe in traditional motivational concepts, arguing that motivation comes from the fundamental human drive to anticipate events. He outlined a few key processes for how people navigate and change their construct systems.

Processes

- **Fundamental Postulate:** The theory is based on a single fundamental postulate: "A person's processes are psychologically channelized by the ways in which he anticipates events". This means all human activity is directed by the need to predict the future.
 - **C-P-C Cycle:** This cycle describes how people deal with a novel situation.
 1. **Circumspection:** The person considers a variety of relevant constructs.
 2. **Preemption:** The person chooses the most appropriate construct to apply to the situation.
 3. **Control:** The person acts based on the chosen construct.
 - **Change in a Construct System:** Change happens when a person is exposed to new experiences that do not fit their existing constructs. The **experience corollary** states that a person's construct system changes as they "successively construe the replication of events".
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Psychopathology and Therapy

Psychological problems, such as anxiety, guilt, and hostility, arise from problems within a person's construct system.

- **Anxiety:** Occurs when a person realizes their available constructs are not sufficient to interpret or anticipate the events they are facing.
- **Guilt:** The feeling of having deviated from one's core role and the expectations associated with it.
- **Hostility:** A continued effort to hold on to a failing construct, even when evidence contradicts it.

Fixed-Role Therapy

This therapeutic technique encourages clients to reconstruct their lives by acting as a new, more effective person. The client writes a sketch of themselves as a new person, and the therapist helps them to live out that new role, effectively testing and replacing old, unworkable constructs with new ones.

Research and Assessment

Kelly developed the

Role Construct Repertory Test (Rep Test) to identify the personal constructs a person uses to understand the significant people in their life. The test was designed as a diagnostic tool to help therapists understand a client's construct system and how they organize it. It involves having the client compare different people (e.g., Mother, Father, Self) and identify the constructs they use to distinguish between them.

Biographical Sketch

- Born in Perth, Kansas, on April 28, 1905, he was the only child of farm parents.

- His father was a Presbyterian minister who became a farmer due to ill health.
- His parents were religiously devout, hard-working, and had traditional Midwestern values.
- He attended four different high schools in four years in Wichita, Kansas.
- He started his academic career at Fort Hays Kansas State College , where he became an associate professor of psychology in 1943.
- During his time at Fort Hays, he developed a program of traveling psychological clinics and abandoned his Freudian approach to personality, concluding that people in the Midwest were more affected by drought and economic setbacks than by libidinal forces.
- During World War II, he worked as a naval aviation psychologist.
- In 1945, he was appointed an associate professor at the University of Maryland.
- He held many leadership positions, including president of both the Clinical and Counseling Divisions of the American Psychological Association.
- He was instrumental in founding the American Board of Examiners in Professional Psychology and served as its president.
- Late in his career, he lectured internationally and applied his personal construct theory to international problems with a grant from the Human Ecology Fund.

Gordon Allport: A Trait Theory of Personality (Lessons 26-27)

Gordon Allport's theory is a blend of

humanistic and **personalistic** approaches, with the primary goal of explaining the uniqueness of each individual. He focused on internal cognitive and motivational processes that influence and cause behavior. His

central concept is the trait, a "generalized action tendency" that accounts for the stable and enduring features of our behavior.

Biographical Sketch

Gordon Allport was born in Indiana in 1897. His father was a physician and his mother a school teacher. He was a social isolate in high school who was skilled with words but not sports, with one classmate joking that he had "swallowed a dictionary". He attended Harvard University, initially receiving low grades but finishing with straight A's. He majored in economics and philosophy but took several psychology courses. After graduating, he traveled to Vienna and had a brief, awkward encounter with Sigmund Freud. Allport received his Ph.D. in psychology in 1922, with his thesis focusing on personality traits—the first such study in the U.S..

What Is Personality?

Allport defined personality as "the dynamic organization within the individual of psychophysical systems that determine his unique adjustments to his environment". Later, he changed "unique adjustments to his environment" to "characteristic behavior and thought". He argued that personality is not a hypothetical entity but an existing "something" within the person that is "alive, well, and functioning".

Allport also differentiated personality from related concepts:

- **Character:** A moral or ethical concept that evaluates a person's actions.
 - **Temperament:** The emotional or mood component of personality.
 - **Type:** A category or class in which a person can be placed, such as an "aggressive type".
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Allport's Concept of Traits

A

trait is a predisposition to respond to various stimuli in a consistent manner. It accounts for the permanent, enduring features of behavior across different situations. Allport believed that traits are not dormant; a person with a strong trait may actively seek out situations that allow them to express it.

Allport identified several "traits of traits" or defining characteristics:

- A trait has a real, not just a nominal, existence.
- A trait is more generalized than a **habit**, which is narrower and more limited.
- A trait is **dynamic** or determinative in behavior, meaning it causes behavior.
- A trait's existence can be established empirically, even if it can't be directly observed.
- Traits are only relatively independent of each other; they can overlap.
- Inconsistent behaviors or habits don't disprove the existence of a trait.

Kinds of Traits (Pervasiveness)

Allport categorized traits based on how pervasive they are within an individual's personality:

1. **Cardinal Traits:** Extremely pervasive and influential traits that almost all a person's activities can be traced back to. Few people possess a cardinal trait, but when they do, it can make them famous or infamous. Examples include historical figures whose names are synonymous with a quality, like "Machiavellian" or "Don Juan".
2. **Central Traits:** Less pervasive than cardinal traits but still highly generalized characteristics that form the "building blocks of personality". These are the traits a person often expresses and that others can readily observe, such as "outgoing" or "vivacious".

3. **Secondary Dispositions (or Traits):** Less consistent, less conspicuous, and less relevant to defining a person's overall personality. These include specific attitudes and preferences, such as food preferences or situational behaviors like being submissive only to police officers.

Common vs. Individual Traits

- **Common Traits (Nomothetic):** Generalized dispositions shared by people within a given culture, allowing for comparisons among individuals. These arise because members of a culture are subject to similar social and evolutionary influences.
 - **Individual Traits (Idiographic):** Allport's primary focus. These are unique to a specific individual and are not shared with anyone else.
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The Proprium: The "Real Self"

Allport believed that personality has a unity and consistency that requires a unifying concept, which he called the

proprium. This is defined as "the self-as-known—that which is experienced as warm and central, as of importance". It refers to all aspects of the personality that contribute to an inward sense of unity and selfhood.

The proprium develops in eight stages:

1. **Sense of Bodily Self:** A sense of one's body and physical existence.
2. **Sense of Self-Identity:** The recognition of oneself as a distinct and constant point of reference, often anchored by one's own name.
3. **Sense of Self-Esteem or Pride:** The individual's evaluation of themselves, a desire for autonomy and competence.
4. **Sense of Self-Extension:** The feeling that other people and things are a part of oneself ("my mommy," "my ball").

5. **Self-Image:** How a person is viewed by others and how they would like to be seen.
 6. **Sense of Self as a Rational Coper:** The realization of one's ability to solve problems and cope with reality.
 7. **Propriate Striving:** The core of adolescence, involving the pursuit of long-range goals and a sense of purpose.
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Functional Autonomy: The Past Is Past

Allport's most famous and controversial concept is

functional autonomy. This principle asserts that adult motives are not tied to the earlier experiences in which they first appeared. For example, a person may have originally started a job for money (a basic drive) but now works for the sheer love of the work itself.

He distinguished between two types:

- **Perseverative functional autonomy:** Refers to basic "circular-feedback" mechanisms in the nervous system.
 - **Propriate functional autonomy:** This is a higher level of autonomy that refers to a person's acquired interests, values, and intentions, and is essential for the integration of a mature adult personality. This is what drives a person to reach higher levels of authentic growth.
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Application: The Study of Values

Allport believed that a mature person needs a unifying philosophy of life based on values. He co-developed a personality test called the

Study of Values to measure the relative strength of six basic value types, originally proposed by Spranger:

1. **The Theoretical:** Concerned with the discovery of truth through reason and observation.
2. **The Economic:** Values what is useful and practical, focused on wealth and material possessions.
3. **The Aesthetic:** Places the highest value on form, harmony, and beauty.
4. **The Social:** Values love of people and is characterized by altruism and philanthropy.
5. **The Political:** The dominant interest is power, influence, and renown.
6. **The Religious:** Places the highest value on unity, seeking to understand and experience the world as a unified whole.

Raymond Cattell (28-29)

Biographical Sketch

Raymond Cattell was born in Staffordshire, England, in 1905. He had a happy childhood and was influenced by World War I, which started when he was nine. He studied at the University of London, where he earned his master's and Ph.D. in psychology. He moved to the United States in 1938, holding positions at Clark University and Harvard before settling at the University of Illinois in 1945. Cattell was a prolific researcher and received numerous honors, including a prize from the New York Academy of Science.

Factor Analysis

Cattell's theory is based on

factor analysis, a statistical method used to identify underlying traits from a large number of observed behaviors. This process involves:

1. Measuring a large number of people in various ways.
2. Correlating each measure with every other measure, creating a

correlation matrix.

3. Searching for clusters of correlations, which indicate a common underlying ability or

factor (or trait).

Cattell used three main sources of data:

- **L-Data (Life Record):** Information gathered from a person's life records, such as school or court records, or ratings from others who know the individual.
 - **Q-Data (Questionnaire Data):** Information from self-rating questionnaires where individuals describe their own behavior.
 - **T-Data (Objective Test):** Data from objective tests in controlled situations where a person's behavior is scored objectively.
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Structure of Traits

Cattell proposed a complex system of traits to describe personality, distinguishing between several types:

- **Unique vs. Common Traits:** **Unique traits** are specific to a single individual, while **common traits** are shared by all people within a culture.
- **Surface vs. Source Traits:** **Surface traits** are clusters of overt behaviors that appear to go together, while **source traits** are the underlying, stable variables that cause surface traits. Cattell believed there are about sixteen source traits.
- **Constitutional vs. Environmental Traits:** **Constitutional traits** are genetically determined source traits. **Environmental mold traits** are source traits shaped by one's culture.
- **Ability, Temperament, and Dynamic Traits:**

- **Ability traits** determine how well a task is performed. The most important is intelligence, which Cattell divided into **fluid intelligence** (general, genetically determined problem-solving ability) and **crystallized intelligence** (accumulated knowledge from experience).
- **Temperament traits** are constitutional and determine a person's emotional makeup.
- **Dynamic traits** are what set a person in motion toward a goal, determining their motivational makeup.

Dynamic Traits

Dynamic traits are further broken down into:

- **Ergs:** Innate, biological drives similar to instincts or primary drives (e.g., hunger, sex).
- **Meta-ergs:** Learned drives that are divided into sentiments and attitudes.
 - **Sentiments:** Learned predispositions to act in certain ways toward objects or events, like the **self-sentiment**, which plays a crucial role in integrating personality.
 - **Attitudes:** Specific responses to specific objects or events, dependent on sentiments.

The relationship between ergs, sentiments, and attitudes is described in the **dynamic lattice**, where attitudes are subsidiary to sentiments, and sentiments are subsidiary to ergs.

The Specification Equation

To predict a person's behavior (R) in a situation (S), Cattell developed a formula called the

specification equation. It states that performance in a situation (

P_j) is a function of various traits and temporary states, each weighted by its importance in that specific situation (S_j):

$$P_j = s_{ja}A + s_{jt}T + s_{je}E + s_{jm}M + s_{jr}R + s_{js}S$$

This formula simply restates that to predict how a person will react, you must know their traits and weigh their relevance to the situation. For example, in a problem-solving situation, the ability trait of intelligence would be given a high weighting.

Personality Development and Research Methods

Personality development is a result of motivation and learning. Cattell identified three types of learning:

1. **Classical Conditioning:** Important for attaching emotional responses to environmental cues.
2. **Instrumental (Operant) Conditioning:** Essential for building the dynamic lattice and learning means to achieve goals. A special form is **confluence learning**, where a single behavior satisfies multiple goals simultaneously.
3. **Integration Learning:** A more complex form of instrumental learning where an individual learns to maximize long-term satisfaction by suppressing some drives to express others. This is key to forming the self and superego.

Cattell developed a method called

Multiple Abstract Variance Analysis (MAVA) to assess the relative influence of genetics and environment on source traits. He also used two factor-analytic techniques:

R-Technique (correlating scores over many people to find common traits) and **P-Technique** (correlating scores over many repeated measurements on a single person to find unique traits). One of his most famous tools is the **Sixteen Personality Factors (16PF)** test, which is widely used to predict vocational and academic success. He also developed the **Culture Fair Intelligence Test** to measure fluid intelligence.

Evaluation

Cattell is praised for his scientific, quantitative approach to studying personality. His use of factor analysis forced him to define his concepts clearly. However, his approach has also been criticized. Allport, for example, felt that Cattell's focus on groups and common traits neglected the unique individuality of a person. Critics argue that the "average personality" derived from factor analysis is an abstraction that no individual actually possesses.

Henry Murray's Personology (Lessons 30-31)

Henry Murray used the term

personology to refer to the comprehensive study of an individual's personality in all its complexity. He defined personality as an abstraction formulated by a theorist that refers to a series of unique, recurrent, and enduring behavioral patterns that ideally span a person's lifetime. Murray believed that personality is located in the brain and its functions include reducing conflicts, satisfying individual needs, and making plans for future goals.

Biographical Sketch

Henry Murray was born in New York in 1893. He graduated from Harvard and initially pursued research in embryology and biochemistry, earning a Ph.D. in biochemistry. His career took a turn toward psychology after he read Carl Jung's book

Psychological Types and spent three weeks with Jung. This experience, along with his relationship with Christiana Morgan, sparked a deep commitment to psychology. He died in 1988 at the age of 95.

Core Concepts

Proceedings and Serials

Murray's theory uses units of time to analyze behavior:

- **Proceedings:** Subject-object or subject-subject interactions of sufficient duration to include the key elements of a behavioral sequence.
- **Serials:** A single unit or formulation of behavior that takes place over a longer period, such as a marriage or a career.
- **Serial Programs and Schedules:** These are orderly arrangements of sub-goals that extend into the future for months or years. Schedules are devices used to reduce conflict among competing needs.

The Dynamics of Personality

Murray's theory is primarily a motivational psychology that focuses on human striving, seeking, and desiring. He believed that the key to understanding behavior is to discover the "superordinate directionality" of an individual's activities.

- **Need:** A construct for a force in the brain that organizes perception and action to transform an unsatisfying situation. Needs can be provoked by internal processes or by environmental forces he called **press**.

Types of Needs

Murray proposed a list of twenty needs, which are highly representative of the motives he studied. He categorized them as follows:

- **Primary (Viscerogenic) vs. Secondary (Psychogenic):** Primary needs are tied to organic events and physical satisfactions (e.g., air, water, food). Secondary needs are presumably derived from primary ones and lack a focal connection to specific organic processes (e.g., needs for achievement, recognition, dominance).
- **Overt vs. Covert:** Overt needs have direct, immediate expression. Covert needs are inhibited or repressed and often operate in fantasy or dreams.
- **Focal vs. Diffuse:** Focal needs are linked to limited environmental objects. Diffuse needs are generalized and can apply to almost any setting.
- **Proactive vs. Reactive:** Proactive needs are largely determined from within the person, while reactive needs are a response to an environmental event.
- **Process Activity, Modal Needs, and Effect Needs:** **Effect needs** lead to a desired end result. **Process activity** is non-functional activity for the sake of pleasure. **Modal needs** involve performing an activity with a certain degree of excellence.

Interrelation of Needs

Needs do not operate in isolation.

- **Prepotent Needs:** Certain needs, like pain or hunger, are more potent and must be satisfied before others can operate.
- **Fusion of Needs:** A single action can gratify multiple needs simultaneously.

- **Subsidiation:** A subsidiary need operates in the service of another, for instance, an aggressive need might serve an acquisitive need. Tracing chains of subsidiation can reveal a person's dominant motives.

Tension Reduction

Murray acknowledged the conventional idea that the satisfaction of a need reduces tension. However, he also contended that people learn to create tension so that it can later be reduced, thereby enhancing pleasure.

Thema, Need Integrate, and the Vector-Value Scheme

- **Thema:** An interactive behavioral unit that represents the interplay between needs and environmental press.
 - **Need Integrate:** When a need, the image of an environmental object, and instrumental acts become integrated, a need integrate is formed. This is a "thematic disposition" for a certain kind of interaction with a specific person or object.
 - **Vector-Value Scheme:** This scheme represents behavioral tendencies in terms of **vectors** (broad directions of activity) and the **values** they serve, such as knowledge, power, or aesthetic form.
-

Other Concepts

- **Genetic-Maturational Determinants:** Murray believed that genetic and maturational factors program the succession of life eras: multiplication of structures in youth, recomposition in middle age, and atrophy in later life.
- **Learning:** He classified learning based on what generates pleasure and distress, which can be retrospective, spective, or prospective.
- **Uniqueness:** Despite his use of general categories, Murray maintained that each person is essentially unique.
- **Unconscious Processes:** Murray was one of the first academic psychologists to accept the pervasive role of unconscious determinants

of behavior, including Freudian mechanisms like repression and resistance.

- **Socialization Process:** He suggested that personality is a compromise between an individual's impulses and the demands of society. Socialization is the process of conforming to cultural patterns, with parents being the primary agents. The development of an adequate superego is an essential element in this process.
-

Research Methods

Murray's research was known for several distinctive qualities:

- **Intensive Study of Small Numbers of Subjects:** He was convinced that a complete understanding of behavior requires a detailed study of individuals, not just groups.
- **The Diagnostic Council:** Murray devised this method involving multiple observers from different disciplines (e.g., psychiatry, psychology, anthropology) studying the same individual from different perspectives to cancel out observer biases and provide a more comprehensive synthesis.
- **Instruments of Personality Measurement:** Murray made significant contributions to personality assessment, most notably the **Thematic Apperception Test (TAT)**, which asks subjects to tell a story about ambiguous pictures to reveal unconscious motives. He also pioneered the use of instruments that encourage a full and subjective exposition from the subject, capitalizing on the fact that humans are "talking organisms".

Albert Bandura's Social Learning Theory (Lessons 32-33)

Bandura's

Social Learning Theory explains behavior as a continuous interaction between **cognitive, behavioral, and environmental determinants**. This theory posits that most human behavior is learned through

observation, or **modeling**. People observe the actions of others (models) and use that information as a guide for their own behavior.

Biographical Sketch

Albert Bandura was born in 1925 in Mundare, Canada. He received his Ph.D. in clinical psychology from the University of Iowa in 1952. In 1953, he joined Stanford University as a professor, where he spent most of his career. He was elected president of the American Psychological Association in 1974 and received several distinguished awards for his contributions to psychology. His influential books include

Adolescent Aggression (1959), *Social Learning and Personality Development* (1963), and *Social Foundations of Thought and Action* (1986).

Reconceptualization of Reinforcement

Bandura broadened the concept of reinforcement, arguing that direct reinforcement is not always necessary for learning to occur. He proposed that reinforcement primarily serves as an informative and motivational operation rather than a mechanical response strengthener.

- **Self-reinforcement:** This occurs when an individual compares their own behavior to internal standards. Meeting these standards leads to feelings of pride and satisfaction, while falling short results in guilt or dissatisfaction.
- **Vicarious reinforcement:** This happens when a person observes someone else being rewarded or punished for a behavior and

anticipates similar consequences for themselves if they perform the same behavior.

- **Anticipated reinforcement:** People can convert foreseeable outcomes into current motivators by representing them symbolically. This means that we are motivated by the expectation of a reward or punishment.
-

Principles of Observational Learning

Observational learning, or

modeling, is governed by four interdependent processes.

- **Attentional Processes:** To learn from a model, a person must pay attention to and accurately perceive the behavior. We are more likely to attend to models who are vivid, attractive, competent, or seen repeatedly.
- **Retention Processes:** The observed behavior must be remembered, which is done by coding it in symbolic form, such as mental images and verbal representations. Rehearsal can enhance memory.
- **Production Processes:** The learner must be able to physically reproduce the observed behavior. This requires having the necessary motor skills and abilities. Practice and feedback are crucial for translating knowledge into action.
- **Motivational Processes:** A person will only perform a learned behavior if they are motivated to do so. Performance is influenced by direct incentives, vicarious incentives (seeing the model get rewarded), and self-administered incentives (self-satisfaction).

Imitation and its Effects

Bandura's famous

Bobo doll experiment with nursery school children demonstrated that children can learn novel aggressive behaviors by observing an adult model,

even without being rewarded for it. This showed that learning can occur without direct practice or reinforcement. Bandura also found that children who saw an aggressive model being punished were less likely to imitate the behavior, while those who saw the model rewarded showed a high degree of imitative aggression.

Bandura further argued that exposure to models can have several effects:

- **Facilitating effect:** A model's behavior can simply elicit similar, socially acceptable responses.
 - **Inhibitory/Disinhibitory effect:** Observing a model's deviant behavior can either strengthen or weaken an observer's inhibitions about performing the same behavior, depending on the consequences the model receives.
 - **Vicarious acquisition of emotional responses:** People can acquire classically conditioned emotional responses by observing a model's emotional reactions to a stimulus.
-

Reciprocal Determinism

Bandura proposed the concept of

reciprocal determinism, which suggests that personal influences (cognitions), environmental forces, and behavior itself are all interdependent determinants of each other. This contrasts with unidirectional views that see behavior as being controlled solely by either internal dispositions or environmental forces. For example, a person's behavior (e.g., talking) can be influenced by their personality and the environment, but that behavior also influences their future personality and can change the environment itself.

The Self-System

The

self-system is not a psychic agent but refers to the cognitive structures and sub-functions that regulate behavior. It is comprised of three component processes:

- **Self-Observation:** We continuously observe our own behavior, noting its quality and quantity.
- **Judgmental Process:** We judge our behavior against our own personal standards, which can be based on past behavior or social comparisons.
- **Self-Reaction:** Based on our judgments, we generate either rewarding or punishing self-reactions. These self-appraisals motivate future behavior.

Applications to Therapy

Bandura applied his theory to therapy, emphasizing that techniques based on learning principles can be highly effective in modifying undesirable behavior.

- **Participant modeling:** This technique involves clients with phobias watching a live model interact fearlessly with the feared object and then practicing the behavior themselves with guidance. This was found to be more successful than other methods like desensitization or symbolic modeling for treating snake phobias.
- **Disengagement of self-condemnation:** Bandura noted that people can protect themselves from self-criticism for reprehensible behavior through various mechanisms, such as moral justification, displacement of responsibility, or devaluing the victim.

Dollard and Miller's Stimulus-Response Theory (Lessons 34-35)

Dollard and Miller's

Stimulus-Response (S-R) theory focuses on the learning process by which a response becomes connected to a stimulus (cue). The central concept of the theory is the

habit, which is a learned association between a stimulus and a response. The theory is concerned with the conditions under which habits are acquired and extinguished. Dollard and Miller's approach is considered a "laboratory theory" because it has strong ties to natural science and experimental research.

Biographical Sketch

John Dollard (1900-1980) received his M.A. and Ph.D. in sociology from the University of Chicago and later became a professor of psychology at Yale University's Institute of Human Relations.

Neal E. Miller (1909-2002) received his Ph.D. in psychology from Yale and was a traveling fellow who received training in psychoanalysis at the Vienna Institute. Despite their different academic backgrounds, they collaborated to develop this S-R theory.

The Learning Process

For learning to occur, four fundamental factors are necessary:

1. **Drive:** A person must "want something". Drives are strong stimuli that motivate behavior, such as primary drives (e.g., hunger, rest) or secondary drives that are learned through association with primary drives.
2. **Cue:** A person must "notice something". This stimulus guides the response.
3. **Response:** A person must "do something". The probability of a response in a given situation is organized into a hierarchy. The

initial hierarchy is the innate order of responses, while the **resultant hierarchy** is the new order that emerges after learning has occurred.

4. **Reward:** A person must "get something". Rewards reinforce the S-R connection. Rewards can be primary (satisfying primary drives) or secondary (originally neutral events that acquire reward value through association with primary rewards).
-

Development of Personality

The transformation from a simple infant to a complex adult is a process of developing new S-R connections.

- **Innate Equipment:** Infants possess specific reflexes, innate hierarchies of responses, and a set of primary drives linked to physiological processes.
- **Secondary Drives and the Learning Process:** The infant's primary drives develop into a complex system of **secondary drives**. For example, a neutral cue that has consistently occurred with a drive-producing stimulus may gain the capacity to elicit some of the internal responses associated with that drive, thereby establishing a secondary drive.
- **Higher Mental Processes:** An individual's interactions can be mediated by internal processes called **cue-producing responses**. The most important of these is **labeling** or naming events. This allows an individual to generalize or transfer a response between two different situations by identifying them with the same label. The ability to use language and other response-produced cues is heavily influenced by the culture and society in which an individual develops.
- **The Social Context:** Neurotic conflicts are learned primarily as a result of conditions created by parents. Cultural demands can be contradictory or discontinuous, making it difficult for a child to learn appropriate behaviors. When this happens at a time when a child lacks symbolic

functions (language), it can lead to frustration and emotional upheaval. Dollard and Miller agree with psychoanalytic theorists that experiences in the first half-dozen years of life are crucial determinants of adult behavior.

Applications of the Model

- **Unconscious Processes:** The theory accepts that unconscious factors can determine behavior. These processes occur when the cues or the responses are not verbally labeled. The theory's account of unconscious processes differs from Freud's version.
- **Conflict:** Conflicts arise when competing motives or tendencies are aroused simultaneously. Dollard and Miller proposed five assumptions to explain conflict behavior, most notably that the **gradient of avoidance** (the tendency to avoid a negative stimulus) is steeper than the **gradient of approach** (the tendency to approach a goal). This can lead to vacillation, where a person is caught between two opposing desires.
- **Psychotherapy:** The goal of therapy is to help a person unlearn maladaptive habits and learn new, more effective ones. The therapist acts as a permissive, non-punitive listener who encourages the patient to express their feelings to understand how their S-R connections developed.

Skinner's Theory of Personality (Lessons 36-37)

Radical Behaviorism. This approach focuses exclusively on

overt and observable behavior and rejects the use of internal states like anxiety to explain why we act the way we do. For Skinner, behavior is not caused by feelings; rather, both behavior and feelings are caused by the same external, aversive conditions. Personality, in this view, is a collection of behaviors shaped by an individual's history of reinforcement.

Biographical Sketch

B. F. Skinner was born in 1904 in a small town in Pennsylvania. As a child, he was known for being a builder and inventor, creating things like scooters, sleds, and even a steam cannon. He attended Hamilton College, majoring in English with aspirations of becoming a writer. After an unproductive period dedicated to writing, he turned to Harvard and psychology. He received his Ph.D. in 1931 and later became a professor at the University of Minnesota, where he wrote his novel

Walden Two (1948), which described a society based on psychological principles. He received numerous honors, including the American Psychological Association's Distinguished Scientific Award , before his death in 1990.

Core Concepts

Classical Conditioning

Also known as

respondent conditioning , this type of learning, first studied by Pavlov and Watson , involves an association between a stimulus and a response (S-R). A neutral stimulus (e.g., a bell) is paired with an unconditioned stimulus (e.g., meat powder) that already elicits an unconditioned response (e.g., salivation). After repeated pairings, the neutral stimulus becomes a conditioned stimulus (CS) that alone can elicit a conditioned response (CR). This process can build upon itself in what is called

second-order conditioning.

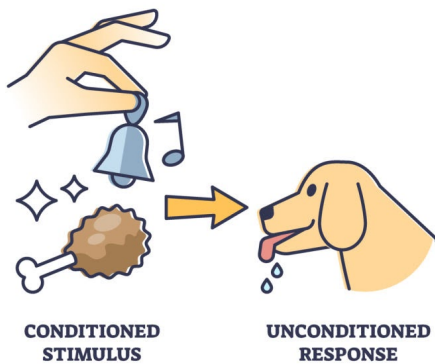
Extinction occurs when the conditioned stimulus is no longer followed by the reinforcement.

CLASSICAL CONDITIONING

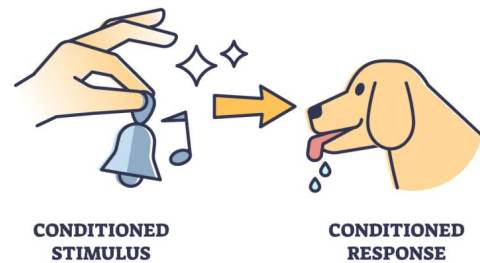
BEFORE CONDITIONING



DURING CONDITIONING



AFTER CONDITIONING



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Operant Conditioning

This type of learning, first investigated by Thorndike , focuses on

operant behavior—responses that "operate" on the environment and change it. The consequences of these actions determine whether the behavior will be repeated.

- **Law of Effect:** Thorndike's law states that behaviors with satisfying consequences are more likely to be repeated (reinforced), while those with unsatisfying consequences are less likely to be repeated (punished).

- **Reinforcement:** A consequence that increases the frequency of a behavior.
 - **Positive reinforcement** involves adding a reward to increase behavior (e.g., a student gets an 'A' for hard work).
 - **Negative reinforcement** involves removing an unpleasant stimulus to increase behavior (e.g., taking a string to turn off an electric shock).
- **Punishment:** A consequence that decreases the frequency of a behavior. This involves adding an aversive stimulus (e.g., a student getting a 'D' grade has to attend summer school).
- **Extinction:** Stopping the reinforcement to cause a behavior to decrease and eventually disappear.

Generalization and Discrimination

- **Generalization:** When a behavior reinforced in one situation spreads to other similar situations.
- **Discrimination:** The ability to distinguish between different stimuli, situations, or people and respond appropriately.

Schedules of Reinforcement

Skinner demonstrated that the pattern of reinforcement, or

schedule of reinforcement, significantly impacts the rate and persistence of a behavior.

- **Continuous Reinforcement:** Reinforcement is given after every desired response.
- **Intermittent Reinforcement:** Reinforcement is not given after every response. This includes:
 - **Fixed-interval:** Reinforcement is given after a set period of time.

- **Variable-interval**: Reinforcement is given after a random, varying period of time.
 - **Fixed-ratio**: Reinforcement is given after a specific number of responses.
 - **Variable-ratio**: Reinforcement is given after a random, varying number of responses. This schedule is at the heart of gambling and produces high, steady rates of responding.
-

Techniques and Applications

Skinner's principles have been applied to various areas, including education, therapy, and social reform.

- **Shaping (Successive Approximations)**: A technique used to teach complex behaviors by reinforcing behaviors that get progressively closer to the final desired behavior. Examples include teaching a child to read or a retarded child to feed themselves.
 - **Systematic Desensitization**: A technique used to treat phobias by pairing relaxation with a fear-producing stimulus in a hierarchical manner.
 - **Aversive Conditioning**: A technique used to decrease an undesirable behavior by pairing it with an aversive stimulus (e.g., giving a drug addict a substance that causes nausea).
 - **Behavior Modification**: A general approach to replacing undesirable behavior with desirable behavior using reinforcement.
 - **Token Economy**: A system used in institutional settings (e.g., mental hospitals, prisons) where individuals earn tokens for desirable behaviors, which can then be exchanged for rewards.
 - **Programmed Learning & Teaching Machines**: Skinner's ideas on reinforcement led to the development of these educational tools, which provide immediate positive reinforcement for correct answers.
-

Evaluation

Skinner's theory is praised for being scientific, elegant, and economical, with a strong emphasis on empirical data. It provides a clear framework for predicting and controlling behavior by manipulating reinforcement contingencies. However, it is also criticized for its exclusive focus on overt, observable behavior and its neglect of internal mental or physiological processes, which many believe are essential for a complete understanding of personality.

Albert Ellis's Theory of Personality (Lesson 38)

Biographical Sketch

Albert Ellis was born in 1913 in Pittsburgh and grew up in New York. As a child, he was frequently hospitalized for a kidney problem, which led him to develop a pattern of self-responsibility and self-care. His father was a traveling businessman, and his mother was not very concerned with the family. Ellis was originally trained in psychoanalysis but became dissatisfied with its lack of effectiveness and developed his own therapeutic approach, Rational Emotive Behavior Therapy (REBT), in the 1950s.

Ellis's View of Human Nature

Ellis believed humans have the potential for both

rationality and **irrationality**. Rationality leads to positive, self-preserving, and self-actualizing behaviors, while irrationality leads to crooked thinking, intolerance, and self-blame. He assumed that people have a biological and cultural tendency to think irrationally and that they actively condition themselves to be disturbed. However, he also believed people have the capacity to change by modifying their cognition, emotion, and behavior.

The A-B-C-D-E Theory of Personality

Ellis's theory is best understood through his A-B-C-D-E model, which explains how emotional disturbances arise from irrational beliefs, not from the events themselves.

- **A (Activating Event):** An unpleasant or negative event occurs. For example, failing a midterm examination.
- **B (Belief System):** The individual holds irrational beliefs or unrealistic interpretations about the event. For example, thinking "I am dumb and stupid" and "I will never be able to pass my final term".
- **C (Consequence):** The irrational belief (B) leads to an emotional disturbance or psychopathology, such as depression or anxiety.
- **D (Disputing):** The therapist or individual actively challenges, debates, or questions the irrational beliefs.
- **E (Effect):** The result of disputing (D) is a more positive and productive new philosophy that minimizes irrationality and emotional disturbance.

Irrational Beliefs and Emotional Disturbance

Ellis believed that maladjustments are rooted in irrational beliefs, which are often learned through socialization from parents, teachers, and media. These beliefs are often characterized by words like "must" and "should". Some common irrational ideas include:

- The idea that we must have love and approval from all people.
- The idea that we must be competent and achieving in all things.
- The idea that it is catastrophic when things do not go our way.
- The idea that our past determines our present, and we have no control to change it.

REBT Therapeutic Process

The goal of REBT is to help the client minimize their self-defeating and irrational outlook on life and adopt a more realistic ideology. The process

involves the therapist developing rapport, pointing out the client's irrational ideas, and demonstrating their illogical nature. The therapist challenges the client to validate their beliefs and uses humor to confront them. Techniques used in REBT can be cognitive (disputing beliefs, homework, changing language), behavioral (self-management, systematic desensitization), and emotional (rational emotive imagery, role-playing).

The Grand Perfect Theory of Personality (Lesson 39)

Is There a Perfect Theory?

There is no single "perfect" or "grand ultimate" theory of personality that can answer all questions about human nature. All the theories that have been studied are not inherently good or bad; instead, each one emphasizes different important aspects of human nature. Therefore, one cannot blindly trust a single theory to be fully representative of human behavior.

Functions of a Good Theory

A good theory of personality fulfills three main purposes in science:

1. **Provides a guideline to researchers:** Theories serve as a map, directing researchers toward important questions in the field.
2. **Organizes known findings:** A useful theory accounts for a wide range of known facts and findings.
3. **Makes predictions:** A good theory allows researchers to make testable predictions.

Common Themes in Personality Theories

Despite their differences, most personality theories attempt to answer questions related to a number of core areas:

- **Genes and Biology:** All theories acknowledge the important role of both genes and the environment ("nature-nurture") in personality development.
- **Stages of Development:** Theories by Freud, Jung, and Erikson, for example, propose that personality develops through a series of stages.
- **Motivation:** Motivation is central to most theories, which distinguish between biological motives (e.g., for food and water) and social motives (e.g., for self-esteem and self-actualization).
- **Learning:** Social learning theories (e.g., Bandura) and stimulus-response theories (e.g., Dollard and Miller) emphasize that an individual learns from their environment through imitation and modeling.
- **Perception:** Theorists like Kelly, Rogers, and Maslow emphasize that the way an individual perceives reality is the basis of their uniqueness.
- **Traits:** Trait theories by Allport and Cattell focus on dispositions or mental structures that account for an individual's behavioral consistency.
- **Emotions:** Personality psychologists are concerned with key emotional states like anxiety, fear, guilt, and depression.
- **Temperament and Body Types:** Sheldon's theory, for example, correlates specific body types (ectomorphs, mesomorphs, endomorphs) with specific temperaments.
- **Neurosis and Disorders:** Horney, Adler, and Rogers all discuss how factors like insecurity, basic anxiety, and a lack of unconditional positive regard can lead to low self-esteem and neurosis.
- **Conscious and Unconscious:** Freud talked about conscious, preconscious, and unconscious levels, while Jung introduced the concepts of the personal and collective unconscious.
- **Therapy:** Despite the variation in theories, there is considerable agreement on the basic concept of psychotherapy.
- **Defense Mechanisms:** Theorists like Anna Freud and Karen Horney identified defense mechanisms as unconscious processes that distort reality and protect the ego from anxiety.

Perspectives or Domains of Personality Psychology (Lessons 40-42)

Personality can be studied using six primary perspectives or domains, each offering a different way to understand individual differences. These domains are:

1. **Dispositional**
2. **Biological**
3. **Intra-psychic**
4. **Cognitive/Experiential**
5. **Social and Cultural**
6. **Adjustment**

We will look at each in more detail below.

1. The Dispositional Approach

This domain focuses on how individuals differ from one another, exploring these differences across various aspects like emotions, self-concepts, physiological characteristics, and intra-psychic mechanisms. The core goal is to identify and measure the important ways people differ, as well as to understand the origin and development of these differences.

- **Traits:** The term "disposition" refers to an inherent tendency to behave in a specific way, or **traits**, which are stable internal characteristics. Traits are considered the "raw material" of personality structure, and this approach assumes that personality is made up of a set of these stable characteristics that guide behavior.
- **Identifying Traits:** Psychologists use three primary strategies to identify fundamental traits:

1. **The Language Approach:** Using terms from natural language to describe personality.
 2. **The Statistical Approach:** Using statistical methods like factor analysis to discover trait clusters.
 3. **The Theoretical Approach:** Relying on existing theories to determine important traits.
- **Key Theorists:** This domain includes theorists such as **Gordon Allport** and **Raymond Cattell**. Allport classified traits as cardinal, central, or secondary based on their pervasiveness. He also introduced the concept of the **Proprium** or "self," which unifies traits and provides direction for a person's life. Cattell used **factor analysis** to discover traits (which he equated with the term "factor") that he considered the building blocks of personality.
 - **Murray's Theory:** Murray's concept of **needs** also fits within this domain, defining a need as a force that organizes perception and action. He proposed different types of needs, such as primary and secondary, overt and covert, and focal and diffuse. His **Thematic Apperception Test (TAT)** was developed based on the belief that many basic human motives exist outside conscious awareness.
-

2. The Biological Approach

This perspective assumes that humans are biological systems and that these systems provide the building blocks for behavior, thought, and emotions. The biological approach is divided into three main areas:

1. **Genetics:** This area focuses on the genetic basis of personality. Research questions include whether identical twins are more alike than fraternal twins and what happens when twins are reared apart. The study of behavior genetics addresses these questions.
2. **Psychophysiology:** This area studies personality in terms of nervous system function, cardiac reactivity, pain tolerance, and the link between

hormones and personality.

3. **Evolution:** This approach assumes that human psychological mechanisms have evolved over thousands of years because they were effective in solving adaptive problems.
 - **Key Theorists:** This domain includes theorists who emphasize biological factors. **Freud's psychoanalytic theory** is considered biological in nature due to its emphasis on instincts like sex and aggression and its biologically defined psychosexual stages of development. **Sheldon's Somatotype Theory** links body type (**soma**) to temperament. **Erik Erikson** also acknowledged biology as a strong determinant of personality but stressed that culture is another important factor.
-

3. The Intra-psychic Approach

This perspective, founded by Freud, assumes that human personality is shaped by conflicts between basic needs (instincts) and the demands of society. These conflicts are largely unconscious but still affect everyday behavior.

- **Key Theorists:** In addition to Freud, other psychodynamic theorists who differed from him also fall into this domain, including **Jung**, **Adler**, and **Karen Horney**.
- **Freud's Concepts:** Freud proposed three levels of consciousness (conscious, preconscious, and unconscious) and three structural components of the mind (id, ego, and superego). The **id** is the irrational, impulsive part of the personality governed by the pleasure principle, while the **ego** is the rational component governed by the reality principle. The **superego** represents the moral branch of personality. Freud also proposed the concepts of **life and death instincts** and three types of

anxiety (reality, neurotic, and moral). To cope with anxiety, the ego employs **defense mechanisms**.

- **Jung's Concepts:** Jung introduced the concepts of the **personal unconscious** (repressed memories) and the **collective unconscious** (ancestral experiences inherited from forefathers). He labeled these inherited experiences as **archetypes**, which include the Persona, Anima, Animus, Shadow, and Self. He also proposed psychological types based on a person's orientation toward the world (introverts and extroverts).
 - **Horney's Concepts:** Karen Horney deemphasized biological motives and focused on a child's need for security. She believed that problems in the parent-child relationship lead to **basic anxiety** and **basic hostility**, which can result in neurotic needs. She rejected the idea of "anatomy is destiny" and believed that males and females are equal.
-

4. The Cognitive/Experiential Approach

This domain focuses on a person's conscious thoughts, feelings, beliefs, desires, and subjective experiences. It explores how individuals perceive and interpret events in their lives, their goals, and their plans. People differ in their subjective experiences and how they process information.

- **Key Concepts:**
 - **Cognitive Experiences:** These are what a person perceives, pays attention to, and how they interpret events. For example, two people looking out the same window might have identical images on their retinas, but one might see "a beautiful day" while the other sees "a dull and boring day".
 - **Emotional Experiences:** This area examines how people experience and express emotions, both as states and as traits. Emotions as traits can be divided into their content (pleasant vs. unpleasant) and their style (high vs. low intensity).

- **Experiences of the Self:** This includes concepts of the real and ideal self, self-identity, self-esteem, and self-actualization.
 - **Key Theorists:** This perspective includes **George Kelly**, who believed an individual's behavior is guided by personal constructs. **Maslow** and **Rogers** are also included due to their focus on self-actualization and the self.
-

5. The Social and Cultural Approach

This domain emphasizes that personality is not just located within the individual but is also shaped by their social and cultural context. It is a study of personality as it is affected by social institutions, social roles, social expectations, and relationships.

- **Key Concepts:**
 - **Cultural Differences:** People from different cultures develop different personalities because they are shaped by different cultural forces. For example, people from American culture tend to describe themselves with abstract concepts (e.g., "I am honest"), while people from Asian cultures often describe themselves through social relations (e.g., "I am Mr. A's daughter").
 - **Gender:** Culture also dictates gender roles and expectations, which can lead to personality differences between males and females.
-

6. The Adjustment Approach

This final domain focuses on how personality helps people cope with, adapt to, and adjust to daily life events. It links personality to important health issues like heart disease, sleep, diet, and exercise.

- **Key Concepts:**
 - **Coping with Stress:** Personality plays a key role in how we appraise and interpret stress. Some people cope well, while others

display problematic patterns of emotions and behaviors.

- **Health and Behavior:** Personality is linked to health outcomes (e.g., heart problems, diabetes) and health-related behaviors (e.g., smoking, drinking).
- **Optimism vs. Pessimism:** The handout provides an example of two individuals with high blood pressure and diabetes. An **optimistic** person (Individual B) will proactively create a diet chart and exercise plan, while a **pessimistic** person (Individual A) will become depressed and see themselves as a patient.
- **Personality Problems:** This domain also studies personality in relation to personality disorders.

Personality Assessment (Lesson 44)

Personality assessment involves gathering information about an individual's personality using various methods. The goal is to obtain as much information as possible to understand and evaluate a person. This process includes data collection, addressing issues in assessment, and evaluating the measures used.

1. Sources of Personality Data

There are four main sources of data in personality assessment:

- **Self-Report Data (S-Data):** This is the most common source of data, where individuals provide information about themselves through questionnaires or interviews.
 - **Unstructured:** Open-ended questions that require subjective answers, such as "Tell me about yourself?". The psychologist must devise a method to score and interpret these responses.
 - **Structured:** Closed-ended questions where the respondent is bound to specific choices, such as "yes," "no," or "undecided".

- **Limitations:** Participants may not be honest or may lack accurate self-knowledge.
- **Observer-Report Data (O-Data):** This data is collected from people who know the individual, such as family, friends, or teachers.
 - **Advantages:** Observers have access to information not available through self-reports (e.g., social reputation) and can provide multiple perspectives.
 - **Assessors:** Observations can be made by **professional assessors** who do not know the person or by **intimate observers** (e.g., close friends or family) who can observe natural behavior and "multiple social personalities". However, intimate observers may be biased.
 - **Settings:** Observations can occur in **naturalistic settings** (e.g., at home or school), which provides firsthand, natural information but offers little control. They can also take place in **artificial settings** (e.g., a laboratory), which allows the researcher to control the events but may not reflect natural behavior.
- **Test Data (T-Data):** This involves placing individuals in a standardized situation to see if they react differently to identical stimuli.
 - **Situational Tests:** Individuals are placed in situations designed to elicit specific behaviors, such as frustrating or leadership situations. A classic example is Murray's "bridge building test," which assessed a person's tolerance for frustration and leadership qualities.
 - **Physiological Data:** Measures of sympathetic nervous system activity (e.g., heart rate, blood pressure) can provide data on a person's reactions to stimuli. The **eye-blink startle reflex** can be used to study anxiety, as shown in Christopher Patrick's research on psychopaths. The **Functional Magnetic Resonance Imaging (fMRI)** technique can identify which parts of the brain are active during specific tasks.

- **Projective Tests:** Based on psychoanalytic theory, these tests present ambiguous stimuli (e.g., inkblots, pictures) to which a person "projects" their own personality, needs, and desires. Examples include the **Rorschach Inkblot Test**, **Thematic Apperception Test (TAT)**, and **Rotter's Incomplete Sentence Blank**. These tests can provide unique insights but are controversial due to a lack of standardization and reliability.
 - **Life-Outcome Data (L-Data):** This refers to information that can be obtained from a person's life events, such as marital status, job termination, or legal records. Personality traits measured early in life can be linked to these important outcomes much later on.
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2. Issues in Personality Assessment

- **Links Among Data Sources:** Researchers look for agreement between different data sources to be confident that their measures are tapping into the same personality phenomenon. A lack of agreement may mean the different sources are measuring different things.
 - **Fallibility of Measurement:** No single method is perfect, so the process of **triangulation** is used to overcome the pitfalls of each data source. This involves seeing if a particular effect is found when measured with different methods (e.g., both self-report and observer reports).
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3. Evaluation of Personality Measures

Measures must be evaluated based on three standards:

- **Validity:** The extent to which a test measures what it claims to measure. There are different types of validity, including face, content, predictive, criterion, convergent, divergent, discriminant, and construct validity.
- **Reliability:** The degree to which a measure is consistent and represents the true level of the trait being measured. Kinds of reliability include test-

retest, alternate forms, split-half, and inter-rater reliability.

- **Generalizability:** The degree to which a measure retains its validity across different contexts, such as various age groups, genders, or cultures.
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4. Research Designs in Personality

There are three basic research designs used in personality psychology:

- **Experimental Design:** Used to determine causality by manipulating one or more variables and randomly assigning participants to groups. It is good for establishing cause-and-effect but poor at identifying relationships in everyday life.
- **Correlational Design:** Measures the relationship between two or more variables as they naturally occur. It can identify the magnitude and direction of a relationship but cannot prove causality.
- **Case Studies:** Provides detailed, in-depth information about a single person. It is valuable for generating hypotheses that can later be tested with experimental and correlational designs.

No single method or design is perfect, and different investigators use different approaches based on their research goals.

New Directions in Personality Psychology (Lesson 45)

This lesson discusses new contributions and future directions in the field of personality psychology, reviewing key concepts covered throughout the course. It highlights that the discipline is evolving with a focus on adaptation and person-environment interaction.

1. New Definition of Personality

The current focus of personality psychology is on

adaptation and **person-environment interaction**. A modern definition of personality includes several key components:

- **Traits and Characteristics:** Personality is a set of traits and characteristics that describe how people differ from each other, such as being shy, intelligent, or talkative. These traits help to describe, explain, and predict behavior.
- **Psychological Mechanisms:** These are the processes of personality that involve information processing and are activated under specific conditions.
- **Within the Individual:** Personality is something a person carries with them over time and across situations, making them feel like the same person from day to day.
- **Organized:** Traits and mechanisms are linked in a coherent fashion, with decision rules that govern which needs are activated in a given situation.
- **Influential Forces:** Personality traits and mechanisms influence how we act, feel, interact with the world, and shape our lives.
- **Person-Environment Interaction:** This is a complex feature of personality that includes perception, selection, evocation, and manipulation of environments.
- **Adaptation:** A central feature of personality is adaptive functioning, which involves accomplishing goals and coping with life's challenges.
- **Environments:** There are three types of environments that influence behavior: physical (e.g., direct threats), social (e.g., friends, mates), and intra-psychic (e.g., memories, dreams).

2. Levels of Personality Analysis

Personality psychology is concerned with all three levels of analysis:

1. **Like all others (Human Nature Level):** This level includes traits and mechanisms that are universally possessed by nearly every human being, such as language skills and the fundamental psychological mechanism to belong to social groups.
 2. **Like some others (Individual and Group Differences Level):** This level focuses on how people are similar to some others but different from others. This includes individual differences (e.g., introverts vs. extroverts) and group differences (e.g., different cultures, genders, or age groups).
 3. **Like no others (Individual Uniqueness Level):** This level emphasizes that every individual is unique, even identical twins raised in the same environment.
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3. Evaluation of Personality Theory and Measurement

- **Criteria for a Good Theory:** A good personality theory should be verifiable, have heuristic value, be internally consistent, parsimonious, comprehensive, and have functional significance. A good theory should also provide guidelines for researchers, organize known findings, and make predictions.
 - **Personality Measurement:** This area includes **personality assessment** (data collection methods like S-Data, O-Data, T-Data, and L-Data) and the use of **psychological tests** (objective tests like MMPI and projective tests like the Rorschach).
 - **Evaluation of Measures:** Personality measures are evaluated based on their **validity** (measuring what they claim to measure), **reliability** (consistency), and **generalizability** (retaining validity across different contexts).
 - **Research Designs:** The three main research designs are experimental, correlational, and case studies, each with its own advantages and limitations.
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4. New Frontiers in Personality Research

The field is moving in several new directions:

- **Cognitive Processes:** Future research will focus on the role of cognitive processes and their relationship to other aspects of psychological functioning.
- **Productive and Creative Persons:** There is a growing interest in studying psychologically healthy, talented, and creative individuals, moving away from an exclusive focus on psychopathology.
- **Physiological and Neurological Bases:** With advances in genetics, biochemistry, and neurophysiology, researchers will increasingly study the physiological and neurological determinants of personality.
- **Personality Development in Middle and Old Age:** Future research will address the imbalance of studies focusing on childhood and adolescence by exploring personality development throughout the entire lifespan.
- **Self-Regulatory Processes:** Future study will systematically examine how humans regulate their own behavior through self-imposed goals and self-produced consequences, building on the work of Bandura.
- **Interaction of Situational and Personality Factors:** Research will continue to explore how both situational factors and personality variables contribute to behavior, moving beyond the sole focus on internal traits.
- **Practical Problems:** The field will increasingly address problems relevant to the practical world, such as improving human conditions and functioning.